

Totality as a Category

An Epistemological Investigation

Harald Høffding

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Chapter I

The Position of the Doctrine of Categories in Philosophy

1. Categories are fundamental concepts which are contained in the presuppositions on which all scientific research rests, and which can be exhibited by analysis of those presuppositions. But for a full elucidation of their nature it is not enough to start out from the science existing at a given time. It must also be shown how they have worked their way forward through the history of science, — how they arise as forms of thought-work, — and how they can disappear again when they are no longer expressions of labouring thought. And from such a historical consideration one must go back again to a psychological investigation of the development of thinking in ordinary human conscious life, of which scientific thinking is a peculiar formation conditioned by determinate tasks. The fundamental concepts with which science works must be psychologically possible, and their first origin must be findable in involuntary thought-life. The difference between the psychological and the epistemological consideration of the categories consists in this, that the former finds possibility for unscientific as well as for scientific thinking, whereas the latter shows that under certain given conditions there is only one single narrow road to understanding. Of our thoughts it holds that many are called, few chosen, — indeed, we must add as psychologists, that many are uncalled.

In epistemological works one will find different weight laid on fundamental concepts and on fundamental propositions. Some epistemologists keep solely to the fundamental propositions, the propositions on which scientific grounding rests. And since propositions

that are presuppositions for all grounding naturally cannot themselves be grounded, the fundamental propositions are often presented as resting on a choice, a leap, an act which in and for itself might just as well have fallen out in quite another direction. The first principles of science are, on this conception, not themselves an object for science. Yet it is for the most part conceded by those who hold this conception that the choice is bound within a certain circle of possibilities, and that this circle of possibilities is given with the nature of human thinking, such as this once and for all is constituted. It is psychology's task to investigate this factual constitution, and the question then presents itself how the different standpoints from which epistemology and psychology assess human cognition stand to one another. But even before we take up this question it will be clear that there is such a reciprocal relation between fundamental concepts and fundamental propositions, as in general between concepts and judgments, that the investigation of the single concepts which the fundamental propositions contain will throw light on the fundamental propositions themselves. Advancing clarity becomes possible at all only by our investigating and determining, with express consciousness, the concepts contained in our judgments, just as on the other side we investigate and determine the kind of connection that is asserted in the judgments between the concepts. The two investigations supplement one another. Advancing clarity in the determination of concepts is the condition for advancing clarity in the understanding of the judgments into which the concepts enter, and conversely. Whether one lays the greatest weight on the one or the other investigation will depend on the special task one sets oneself. But for a complete reckoning neither of the two standpoints can be dispensed with. To this it comes in addition that the type of thought is the same in concepts as in judgments. The judgment is a connection of concepts, but the concept is a connection of marks. It is the same fundamental property of our thinking that expresses itself in both places, in the concept more as structure, in the judgment more as function.

Whereas by keeping merely to science's first presuppositions one arrives at an uncompromising theory of postulates, which places all scientific thought-work in a distant relation, or even in sharp opposition, to all other spiritual work, one will, by investigating the fundamental concepts as well, be able to be led to an understanding of the relation of scientific thought-work to the life of the spirit as a whole. And since it is precisely one of philosophy's tasks to investigate this relation, it will be of importance to attempt a

determination of the position of the doctrine of categories within philosophy.

2. When does science begin? And how does scientific consciousness stand to the thought-life that unfolds before and alongside the scientific, in greater or less independence of it?

For the elucidation of these questions it must first be held fast that a common type makes itself felt in all human thought-life, the prescientific, the scientific and the unscientific alike.

Practical life itself, its necessities and its tasks, leads to thinking. In order that a man may attain the ends he strives after, there are certain means that must be procured. Here man learns in fact and in practice what necessity is, that is, he learns to know the inexorable relation between ground and consequent. So long as he holds fast to the end, so long must he also concede the necessity of means, and finally of certain determinate means; and he learns conversely to see that the attainment of the end is a consequence of the application of certain means. He learns besides that when the same necessities and the same outer conditions repeat themselves, the same means must be resorted to. A Central Australian, for example, gathers plants, threshes them with a stick, sifts the seed, roasts it, crushes it on stones and eats it: a series of actions which, every time he is hungry, must be performed in the same way and in the same order. At bottom, science's first presuppositions may be said to be present already in this series-formation.

In the most recent time particular weight has been laid on the influence of social life on the first development of thinking. In the tribe's division into different groups or classes there lay a model for all classification, and thereby for all logic. We still speak, after all, of genera and families in the division of natural objects, in spite of the fact that eager theorists of heredity find false analogies here. The representation of time and the division of time received their development through the rhythmical course and regular recurrence of religious feasts and ceremonies. Our almanac still indicates the scheme of the church year. And religious worship demanded that liturgical acts be performed in a quite determinate manner, the same in every single case, if the result was to be attained. Here, then, was inculcated the proposition that like must be produced by like. The division of space received its clarity by reason of the religious significance of the different directions and the different places.¹

¹ÉMILE DURKHEIM has, especially in his work *Les formes élémentaires de la vie religieuse* (1912), made

That the social conditions under which men develop exercise a very great influence on their way of thinking and their forms of thought is beyond doubt, even if not everything can be explained along this road. Social influence is constantly broken against the practical experience individuals can make on their own account, face to face with those conditions of life which also gain influence on the conduct of society as a whole.

Whether one will now lay the greatest weight on individuals' practical experiences or on the influence of social institutions, it is a fact that at each given time and among each single people there appears a certain conception of the world, involuntarily and in part unconsciously developed, which is built after the same main forms as those that appear in a more stringent and special manner in scientific thinking. It bears witness to a need and a capacity to order and interpret observations and traditions and thereby to bring them into a certain connection. The thought-work that is done here proceeds without clear consciousness. No attention is directed to the single transitions of thought or to the warrant for connecting, in a certain determinate way, the single elements that observation and tradition offer. To use the terminology I have employed elsewhere: it is not analytic and synthetic intuition, but practical and concrete intuition, that is present here.² So-called sound common sense operates throughout with these last-named kinds of intuition. Through them it can, to use MEYERSON's expression,³ give "a first, very clumsy sketch of a scientific and metaphysical system". — In language, in the words language forms and the word-combinations it shapes, such a system is already contained, one that constantly makes its influence felt on the scientific forms of thought.

The origin and development of science, as the history of science shows it to us, really makes the question of its first beginning fall away entirely, since it turns out that its first germ is present as soon as men begin to think. At all stages and under all conditions a certain opposition makes itself felt between something given, something presented, and its interpretation, between the single subject-matter and the connection into which it is fitted. Progress consists in there coming to be an ever closer and stricter relation between observation and interpretation. More and more one becomes conscious that all

this way of looking at the matter prevail and sharpened it into the assertion that all categories are of religious-social origin. Cf. my treatise *Sociologi og Religionsfilosofi* (Vor Tid, 1914–15), (in French in *Revue de la Métaphysique et de Morale*, Nov. 1914).

²See *Om Begrebet Intuition* (Vid. Selsk. Oversigt 1914), p. 77.

³MEYERSON has discussed the concept of *sens commun* in an excellent manner in his book *Identité et Réalité* (1908), Chap. XI.

interpretation must in the end itself be fetched from observations, and that the fitting of the single subject-matter as a member into a whole connection must take place after exact testing both of the single observation itself and of the other observations with which it is connected. As will be shown in what follows, it is here especially the difference between identity and analogy, and the limit of analogy's warrant, that one must have an eye for.

3. It is psychology's task to find the common type for all thought-life, the scientific as well as the prescientific and the unscientific.

This type can in its generality be designated as a whole-formation. Even the simplest sensations of sense show themselves to stand in connection with one another, so that the single one cannot be understood, either as regards degree of strength or as regards quality, except by being seen as a member in a whole series or group of sensations. The temporal relation between the different sensations is already decisive for the degree of independence with which they appear. To this it comes in addition that reproductions of earlier sensations unite themselves more or less closely with the newly emerging sensations, often from the very hour of their birth. Thereby recognition, partial perception and sense-illusion become possible. Where the reproduced elements gain the decided upper hand, memory and imagination appear as a whole-formation of a higher order. Through association, displacement and comparison, intuitions of sense, of memory and of imagination can undergo alterations, articulations, without the character of intuitability disappearing. Cooperating in all these whole-formations, from first to last, are practical motives, need and impulse, pleasure and displeasure.

Characteristic of the whole-formations here spoken of (which lead to what I have called concrete and practical intuition) is the involuntary manner in which they come to be. From this follows the self-evidence and originality they seem to possess. The elements of which they are built up are not themselves accessible to us in the same way as the elements out of which we form concepts, judgments and inferences with full consciousness, since the marks of the concept, the members of the judgment and the premises of the inference are then given in advance of the new whole-formations into which they enter. Thereby what I have called analytic and synthetic intuition stands in opposition to concrete and practical intuition. Now it is in fact not all concepts, judgments and inferences that we form with full consciousness; they can also arise by involuntary whole-formation. But if concepts, judgments and inferences are to have

scientific significance, they must be capable of being formed anew, in such a way that full and clear consciousness is present at each single transition from thought to thought (analytic intuition) as well as at each single connection of thought with thought (synthetic intuition). Yet even in the involuntary formation of concepts, judgments and inferences, reflection appears as something different from immediate intuiting (in sensation, memory and imagination), inasmuch as a more or less distinct transition and comparison takes place between the elements that are brought into connection, whereas the elements out of which immediate intuitions are formed can be traced only indirectly and in part by the road of analogy.

Since the formation of concepts takes place by judging, and since the inference is the formation of a judgment out of other judgments, we can in this connection keep to the judgments.

The judgment is formed in the first instance on the basis of immediate intuiting. It states a determinate relation between elements in the content of the intuition, elements which in the intuition itself stand in continuous connection or are perhaps even fused with one another. The judgment “the table is square” is formed on the basis of an intuiting in which the property “square” was already contained (“lay”), but without being specially brought forward and without being placed in relation to the table as a whole, that is, as the sum-total of all its properties.

But why are judgments formed at all, — why do we not remain at intuiting? It is surely not, as some authors seem to conceive the matter, a kind of fall into sin that has taken place here. It is the richness and manifoldness of observation, and memory’s attempt to span this richness, that make another kind of whole-formation than immediate intuiting necessary. The primary form of the whole is burst open, and a new one is sought.

It can be difficult to draw a sharp boundary between intuition and judgment. As already indicated, the intuition can be altered, articulated. This happens by single parts pushing themselves into the foreground while others recede. In the case of the table, for example, the colour can make itself specially felt in preference to the figure, and in the figure itself the contour in preference to the form of the surface.⁴ Such displacements go on unceasingly in our sensations, memories and imaginings. But a judgment is formed only when we become conscious of these transitions instead of being wholly absorbed

⁴Cf. EDGAR RUBIN: *Synsoplevede Figurer*.

in the intuitions that are present in the single moments and that succeed one another. Now as regards this consciousness there may indeed be many transitions and degrees; but the end-points nevertheless stand in characteristic opposition to one another, and it would be unwarranted to transfer to intuition everything that holds of judgment. There is only analogy between them, an analogy grounded in their being two different ways in which psychical energy, that is, the need and the capacity for whole-formation, can express itself.

The founders of the doctrine of categories, ARISTOTLE and KANT, rightly saw that the scientific fundamental forms of cognition must be findable by analysis of the judgments that are passed. What they have not seen clearly enough is that the psychical energy at work in the formation of judgment also works, under other conditions, in other whole-formations. Only through the continuity and analogy that make themselves felt between the primary whole-formation and the judgment is it understood how scientific consciousness stands in close connection with the life of consciousness as a whole and is a more special formation of it. But it is also precisely only a relation of analogy that is present, as between two examples of the same concept. Since judgments can be derived from, built upon, intuitions, one may readily say that they are “contained” in them or “lie” in them. But that is figurative speech. For because a judgment is logically possible, it is not thereby said that it is psychologically possible; and in any case it is a conversion into another form that takes place in the transition from intuition to judgment, a transition that presupposes certain determinate conditions. One must not confuse the immediate and involuntary security with which the mind rests in intuitions of sense and of memory with the assurance that is first the work of reflection. Such a confusion is committed by HEINRICH MAIER⁵ when he declares: “Elementary judgments lie in every observation, every memory-image, every cognitive representation of imagination, in so far as all these representations have real objects, real events, states, things and so forth for their object”. And when he adds: “The alleged images of observation, memory and imagination, which are supposed to be indifferent to the opposition between true and false, valid and invalid, are fictions that never and nowhere are real”, — then I can only agree with him in so far as that immediate security cannot be called indifference. Strictly speaking one can speak of

⁵*Psychologie des emotionalen Denkens* (1908), p. 2. — Cf. on this whole question *Den menneskelige Tanke*, p. 53–59; 74 f.; 99–103.

indifference only where both members of the opposition are known and stand as equally valid. But this acquaintance is not present from the first. There has not yet been any eating of the tree of knowledge. No doubt has yet stirred; the state is positive through and through. When the immediate security is broken through contradiction, or through the demands for closer determination that new observations make, then reflection begins its work of producing new whole-formations, and then the judgment can replace the intuition. Only then does application arise for the concepts true and false as opposites.

4. The difference between elementary, involuntary thought-work and scientific thought-work can be elucidated from three different sides.

a. Reflection will first of all seek to order the different subject-matters it distinguishes according to their mutual relation. Relation, determinateness by relation, is therefore (as the history of the doctrine of categories also shows) the most conspicuous category. But orderings determined by relation can be of different significance for the development of cognition. Through a series of stages reflection advances from purely external orderings, which cannot lead further, to orderings that make it possible to derive new relations from those already present. There is a whole series of stages from chaos to rationality, and rationality can itself have different degrees. These stages are elucidated by the series that can be formed by the ordering of the subject-matters. A survey of these series I have given in “Den menneskelige Tanke” (p. 162–207); but I come back to them here in all brevity and from a somewhat different point of view.⁶

α. If we try to think for ourselves the conditions most unfavourable for human thinking, we stand before the logically irrational. We stand before such a relation between given subject-matters that they are all equally different from one another, and that they can therefore be placed in any order whatever. One may push out any member whatever without the relation between the remaining members being altered, and without anything following from it at all. Such a series I have called a chaotic difference-series. It does not appear in immediate observation. For already, purely psychologically, the order of the addends is not a matter of indifference. Our mental states are determined, both as regards degree and as regards quality, by their place in the series of our lived experiences. But there can be all possible approximations to such a logical irrationality, which differs from

⁶As an appendix to the present treatise there is printed a list of the categories, essentially as I have presented them in the book named. And there are also set out the different series-formations that express the transition from prescientific to scientific consciousness.

mathematical irrationality in this, that it cannot, as the latter can by its very manner of coming to be, lead to a reduction of the differences. We know that $\sqrt{2}$ lies in the series of numbers between 1 and 2 and nowhere else, and within the interval named the place can be determined ever more exactly the more decimals we calculate. The logically irrational, by contrast, means a halt.

The next step is that series are formed whose members lie fast, while the relations of difference vary from member to member. Such an indeterminately varying difference-series does not permit elimination without the members between which the elimination takes place coming into another relation to one another than before. But the advance consists in this, that clear survey has replaced the chaotic unrest.

A new advance is made when the differences between the members vary in a determinate direction within the series. Such a regularly varying difference-series makes possible for reflection the formation of a law or rule by which the place of the subject-matters in the series can be determined. And the task can be set of finding new members in the series, intermediate members between those already given.

If the difference between members that have their determinate place in a series is constantly the same, member for member, we get an identically varying difference-series. The concept of identity begins to dawn, provisionally as identity of the difference between qualitatively varying subject-matters. Such series can be formed of moments, numbers, degrees and places. Every moment, with its peculiar lived experience, has a determinate place in the series of moments, and every moment stands in the same relation to the preceding and to the following moment. So too with the numbers. Every number has from the first, as POINCARÉ has expressed it, its own individuality, is qualitatively different from other numbers, not merely by its place in the number-series. That one can by different roads come to the same individual number is a discovery that presupposes a higher stage than the one we here stand at. GOETHE held that mathematics moves in nothing but identities, because $2 + 2 = 4$, but also $4 = 2 + 2$, so that we get nothing other than what we had beforehand. But the different roads by which one can come to a number (e.g. by counting to 4 or by adding 2 and 2 together) are different operations, of which one discovers only afterwards that they lead to the same result and presuppose the same principles. The number is provisionally an ordinal number, a numeral. Differences of degree too are immediately differences of quality, and yet they lie in a determinate order

in a series whose members can vary in an identical manner. So it stands with places in space as well. Even if they are perhaps still regarded as qualitatively different, it is an identical varying by which one passes from place to place.

β. In the series so far spoken of, the members are qualitatively different, and it is merely a question of their mutual relation with respect to place in a series. It is a great advance when this place becomes quite determinate. Classification and comparison become possible thereby. But these operations can really be carried out only when series can be formed in which every member is comprised in the preceding one. This can again appear in two ways. In a progressive difference-series every member can, for example, be a part of the preceding. In a classification the species is a part of the genus, and the individual a part of the species. From this it can be inferred that when an individual *A* belongs to the species *B*, and the species *B* to the genus *C*, *A* also belongs to *C*. It is essentially on this that the Aristotelian doctrine of inference builds. In a partial identity-series the following member stands to the preceding as predicate to subject, or as consequent to ground. Here too classification can be used as an example, for that *A* belongs to the species *B* means that the predicates *B* designates belong to *A*. In both the series named, the inference takes place by the elimination of intermediate members.

When a series in which the members lie fast is symmetrical, that is, can be read backwards just as well as forwards, one can infer from it to the reversed series.

γ. Progressive difference-series, partial identity-series and symmetrical series may be called rational series, inasmuch as they make inference possible. But the qualitative difference of the members is not abolished by their being capable of being seen as parts or wholes, or as subjects and predicates in relation to one another. The most perfect kind of inference becomes possible only when not merely the relation between the members is constantly identical, but the members themselves are so too, so that not merely members can be pushed out, but every member can be substituted for every other. We then get an absolute identity-series: $A = B = C = D \dots$ Here is given, as LEIBNIZ first rightly saw, the foundation — and at the same time the ideal — for all rational thinking. Such a series designates the complete opposite of the chaotic difference-series. The two series designate the ideal limits between which human cognition moves.

Step by step we thus come, by running through the stages the different series designate, up to the presuppositions on which strict science rests. But we see at the same time that

the rational series are not the only possible ones, and that within the rational series a distinction must be made between those that make merely classification and comparison possible and those that make inference in the strictest sense possible. The different series form a scale, and it will perhaps be possible to find still more stages on this scale than have been named in the foregoing. The thought-work that is directed to the abolition of the chaotic relation between the subject-matters presents a whole series of degrees, until the purely rational stage is reached, where not merely the relation of the members but the members themselves are identical. This highest stage stands, however, always only as an ideal that can be reached only approximately and by abstracting from a quantity of actually present differences. Through ordering, classification and comparison, scientific consciousness works its way up towards its highest form, everywhere that the subject-matters make it possible.

KANT took account, in “*Kritik der reinen Vernunft*”, only of the highest stage of science, that is, of the stage where it was possible to draw inferences on the basis of absolute identity. Classifying and comparing science he took no account of; that he reckoned to mere empiricism. And against the objection that classification and comparison nevertheless presuppose the validity of logical thinking no less than mathematical natural science does, he answers that the principles of pure logic are indeed negative criteria of truth, but not sufficient to ground the kind of science whose possibility he wishes to investigate.⁷ But we do after all ascribe objective validity to our classifications and comparisons, just as much as to the natural laws proper, and there is therefore just as much ground for investigating the warrant for assuming the objective validity of purely logical principles as there is for investigating the objective validity of the mathematical principles and of the principle of causality. SALOMON MAIMON already saw this, in maintaining against KANT that the logical fundamental forms, affirmation and negation, have no significance if they are not presupposed valid for the subject-matters to which they are applied. Whereas KANT lets epistemology (“transcendental philosophy”) presuppose formal logic as a discipline finished once and for all, MAIMON maintains that epistemology must precede formal logic if the latter is to have real significance.⁸ — KANT naturally had the right to limit the scope of his investigations, but he had not the right to think that he

⁷*Kritik der reinen Vernunft*¹, p. 151 f.

⁸*Versuch einer neuen Logik oder Theorie des Denkens*, Berlin 1794, p. 404–408.

had thereby also limited the scope of science.

b. From a new side the transition from elementary, prescientific consciousness to scientific consciousness comes forward when we bring out a presupposition on which all the kind of series-formation spoken of in the foregoing rests. We have in the foregoing taken account only of the struggle against the differences, and have seen how the degrees of likeness, both as regards relation and as regards members, step by step approach pure identity. But all difference and likeness, and thereby all series-formation, presupposes the possibility that subject-matters can be gathered, comprehended and ordered. Here the concept of synthesis comes forward as a presupposition that holds both for formal and for real science, both for classification and for the cognition of laws. Series-formation rests on determinate relations between the subject-matters being exhibited, and relation is thought only when the members between which the relation holds are the object of one and the same act of thought. Relation presupposes synthesis. But since synthesis, gathering-together, consists precisely in bringing subject-matters into some relation or other to one another, relation and synthesis are correlative concepts.⁹

Now the series spoken of in the foregoing are only typical examples of what can find application in many special cases. Many different classifications can be undertaken, many different comparative points of view adopted, many different laws found. But all these must again be brought into connection with one another, and hereby new series-formations will come forward. Syntheses of a higher order are then presupposed than in the single series taken each by itself. What matters then is that the scope of the synthesis becomes as great as possible. A striving towards an ideal maximum makes itself felt here. There will here be greater resistance to overcome than in the single series, since the difference between the series that can be formed in the different domains will be greater than the difference between members in the same series and in the same domain. The question becomes finally whether our thinking has at its disposal logical forms for complete gathering-together, or whether at a certain point more or less bold and more or less poetic analogies do not replace logical thinking. In the sixth chapter of the present treatise we shall return to this question. But before that boundary is reached where thinking passes over into poetry, there is still a domain in which scientific hypotheses

⁹In *Den menneskelige Tanke* p. 155 f. I set up synthesis as the first category, relation as the second. An acute reader has drawn my attention to the fact that they ought to have been set up as correlative concepts, like continuity and discontinuity, likeness and difference.

move with full right. The need for gathering-together will constantly make itself felt, not merely towards subject-matters, but also towards series. And by attempts at an ever more comprehensive synthesis light can be thrown on the single series and the single subject-matters, just as the single subject-matters are already illuminated by the place they occupy in the series of which they are members. Synthesis and analysis (and analogously: continuity and discontinuity, likeness and difference) stand in constant reciprocal action with one another, and science's rhythmical oscillations find their natural explanation in this fundamental law of human thought.

c. A third point of view for characterizing the difference between prescientific and scientific thinking is given in this, that the more science develops, the greater the differentiation of the different problems that takes place. In involuntary thinking no distinction is made between subject-matter, form and value. One does not make critically clear to oneself where the boundary lies between the immediately given (the subject-matter) and the thought-elaboration one applies in interpreting it. Nor is it recognized how even the subject-matter's first appearance for us is conditioned by our receptivity, which is never absolutely passive. Neither is value definitely separated from subject-matter and form. The point of view of value will under primitive conditions have been the predominant one, since subject-matters are noticed especially on account of their practical significance, and since the way in which the subject-matter is interpreted is also conditioned by its connection with practical interests. BERGSON ought therefore to have reckoned the element of value among "les données immédiates"; he has attempted to eliminate the element of form and thinks that if it could be separated out, the element of subject-matter alone would remain. He is even inclined to think that the ground for the predominance of the element of form in science must be sought in practical considerations. But interest cooperates already in the choice of subject-matter. Naturally it cooperates also in the primitive interpretation. The teleological point of view rules in animism under all its forms, from fetishism right up into the most sublime theology. And in the primitive forms or intimations of what we now call categories it can be traced that practical motives have cooperated in their arising. Space means at first distance from an end striven after, time a relation between a wished-for future and an unsatisfying present, and the causal relation makes itself felt in the attempt to abolish these distances in space and time. In the course of science's development a constant striving is traceable to eliminate the element of value,

to abstract from all interest with the exception of the intellectual interest, which both as motive and as effect is bound in the most intimate way to thought-work itself. Thereby other values do not necessarily fall away, but the concept of value can now become the object of a special problem, which among other things also discusses the relation between intellectual value and other values.

The distinction between the three elements marks an important advance. It has not yet been strictly carried through in science, and still less in ordinary consciousness. This distinction naturally solves no problems. On the contrary, it is the condition for problems being able to be set sharply and determinately, and the very clash between the three elements sets in the end the greatest problem of all. — For the rest, this point of view, drawn from differentiation, leads back to the preceding points of view, inasmuch as with increasing differentiation increasing demands are made on synthesis, if the unity of the life of the spirit is to be preserved, and inasmuch as differentiation occasions new relations.

5. Psychology's independence over against epistemology follows from the fact that scientific thinking cannot emancipate itself from the general laws of the life of consciousness. (Cf. my *Psychologi*⁶ V B, 11.) Both discovery and the conducting of proof are due to psychical work. They must be psychologically possible. One cannot deduce epistemology from psychology, but one can investigate what psychological conditions scientific cognition presupposes, and then investigate whether these conditions are present. Psychology's position over against science is quite analogous to its position over against art and religion. It asks how science is possible, just as it asks how art and religion are possible. These different spiritual forms of life grow out of involuntary mental life and, so long as the conditions for their subsistence are present, do not lose their connection with it, in spite of the peculiarity with which they appear in their higher development.

When epistemology is presented synthetically, the connection with psychology shows itself most plainly. Psychology then appears as an introduction, as a kind of "Phänomenologie des Geistes". In investigating involuntary thought-work we become aware of that relation between subject-matter and interpretation which plays a decisive part in scientific thinking. The forms under which subject-matters are worked up by involuntary thought-activity must be ground down, widened or narrowed, if the goal

science sets itself — namely to win thoughts that can subsist in spite of the changing of subject-matters — is to be reached.

KANT proceeds synthetically in “Kritik der reinen Vernunft”. His “metaphysical” deduction in the “transcendental aesthetic” and his “subjective” deduction in the “transcendental analytic” are in reality psychological analyses, by which the concept of form is separated out from the concepts of subject-matter and value. In my book “Den menneskelige Tanke” I also proceed synthetically, only with greater weight on the psychological and historical foundation. I seek to show how the transition from intuiting to judging already contains the germ of scientific thinking, and how the latter, through the history of science, awakens to an ever clearer consciousness of itself. From this followed the division of my presentation into three sections: Functions, Categories and Problems.

But in an analytic presentation of epistemology too it will constantly show itself that there is a necessary connection between epistemology and psychology. One then starts out from actually existing science and asks what presuppositions it rests on and what forms of thought it works with. And thereafter one cannot avoid asking how far these presuppositions and forms are actually present in the life of consciousness, and how they stand to its involuntary thought-work. This road KANT took in the “Prolegomena”. The road leads here from the fundamental propositions through the categories back to the psychical functions, which it is psychology’s business to exhibit and to describe. This triad emerges clearly in more recent epistemological works that proceed analytically, as the “Prolegomena” does. MEYERSON (*Identité et Réalité*, 1908) comes, through analysis of the presuppositions of modern exact natural science, back to the opposition between identity and succession. Causality in the strict sense contains, on his conception, two-sided equivalence, possibility of substitution, and therefore identity. But there can be lawfulness (*légalité*) without two-sided equivalence; here substitution is not possible, and therefore MEYERSON will not use the expression causality here. CARNOT’s principle (entropy) shows the significance of this difference. MEYERSON finds through the history of science a constant, irrepressible tendency in the human spirit to form concepts of something that subsists in spite of all succession. But when now time cannot be eliminated — which CARNOT’s principle plainly proves by exhibiting a limit to the substitution of states in nature — then we stand at the opposition between identity and succession, and at the opposition, connected with it, between quantity and quality, which points back in

the end to the relation between thinking and sensation, which it is psychology's task to investigate. So here too we come back from fundamental propositions through categories to psychical functions. In CASSIRER (*Substanz und Funktion*, 1910) as well, the difference between functions, categories and problems emerges clearly, in the reverse order from that which I, on account of a synthetic presentation, follow in my book. CASSIRER's analysis of the presuppositions of science leads him to impress the significance of the concept of relation, which for him, as for so many more recent epistemologists, becomes the most important category. And thereby the task is in the end set for psychology of investigating relation, the part played by determinateness by relation within mental life. Wrongly does CASSIRER think that this investigation has hitherto been altogether neglected. But the main thing in this connection is that there is a close connection between epistemology and psychology. Indeed, CASSIRER even ends his book with the declaration that in the end the opposition between them falls away, since "psychology itself gives a start (*Ansatz*) towards the problems that must seek their advancing solution in logic and in logic's application to science". In HENRI POINCARÉ's epistemological treatises too we find the triad spoken of. His investigations of the theories of modern mathematics and physics lead him back to the opposition between continuity and discontinuity and their constant clash within the development of thought and of science. And this opposition it is psychology's task to investigate, since it hangs together with the opposition between intuiting and thinking, an opposition that must constantly assert itself anew. POINCARÉ therefore denies (see especially "*Dernières Pensées*", p. 139, 158) that there is any epistemology independent of all psychology: such a thing is just as impossible as that there should be science without scientists!

If involuntary thought-life did not prepare the way for scientific thought-life, science would lose its natural ground. Science grows up out of involuntary thought-life. There is accordingly a whole group of categories, the fundamental categories, with which involuntary thought-life already operates: synthesis and relation, continuity and discontinuity, likeness and difference are forms that no member of consciousness can do without. They yield a definition of what it is "to think" in the widest sense of the word, the sense in which DESCARTES, by his own explanation, took the word when he said "*je pense, donc je suis*". The other groups are specially formed applications of the fundamental categories. In classification and in logical and mathematical thinking the formal categories (identity and

rationality) display themselves. In natural science, psychology and sociology one works with the real categories (causality, totality, development). In economics, aesthetics, ethics and the philosophy of religion, value-concepts lie at the base. A rational classification of the sciences is one and the same thing with a systematic doctrine of categories.

The formal categories came to consciousness already in antiquity. Here lies the great deed of Greek thinking. In more recent times it cost a struggle before the real categories could be seen in their characteristic difference from the formal. Here lies the great contribution of HUME and KANT. And it has cost — and still costs — labour to separate the value-concepts out from the other categories and yet to see them in their connection with them. The history of the problems and the history of the categories stand in close connection with one another.

Some examples will further illustrate both the relation between the different groups of categories and the relation between psychology and epistemology.

It is by analysis of the states given in psychological experience that epistemology is prepared. In the psychical states there is given something other and something more than epistemology needs. It is the tasks that determine what is selected within the sum-total of possibilities presented. There appear, for example, in psychological experience different degrees or kinds of relation of likeness. In recognition, association and comparison alike the relation of likeness displays itself, partly as coincidence, partly as composite likeness (coincidence + difference), partly as qualitative likeness, partly as likeness of relation. These likenesses acquire epistemological significance in that they make possible the formation of series — the series lying fast, in which the members are ordered according to decreasing likeness or increasing difference, and by which classification and comparative science become possible. But logic and mathematics require coincidence in its perfect, ideal form as absolute identity, because only thereby do strict inference and calculation become possible. Identity is then defined as a limiting case of likeness. It is an analytic definition that we here apply, just as when in geometry we go from the body (“the block”) to the surface, from the surface to the line (“the edge”), and from the line to the point. The beginning is psychological (or lies in a domain common to psychology and epistemology), but from this starting-point the epistemological point of view develops successively to independence. This development coincides in part with a development from practice to theory. In practice we can often be content with an estimate, an apprehension of

likeness of a kind lying between coincidence and likeness of relation. But strict theory requires identity as the foundation for inference and measurement. It is such an identity that PLATO means by what he calls “the Idea of likeness”. The Platonic Ideas are both general concepts and fundamental concepts; PLATO felt no need to distinguish sharply between classification and exact thinking, between descriptive and formal science. Just as for PLATO the highest degree of likeness is an “Idea”, to which in all given cases we have only approximations, so according to KANT pure space is an “Idea”, a rule by which phenomena can be ordered and judged, but which is not itself a phenomenon. The strife between the different epistemological tendencies really turns on how far it is necessary to go to the limit — to identity as the ideal of likeness. All are indeed agreed that absolute identity cannot be exhibited in any observation whatever. It is merely a question whether one will go at once to the practical application of science, or whether one will first present science in the strict form it acquires by one’s going to the limit, and thereafter descend to the cases possible in experience and practice. It is a relation between whole and part, or between a series of increasing degrees of likeness and this series’ last member, that here lies at the base. The different definitions that have been given of identity have this in common, that they all presuppose likeness and difference as known, as immediately presented as soon as reflection has begun to work, and that within the possibilities the relation of likeness and difference contains one selects the one that can become fruitful for thought. When LEIBNIZ defines identity by possibility of substitution, that means, after all, that he keeps to the degree of likeness that makes it possible to put the one in place of the other. So too in a famous mathematician’s definition of identity as the difference that is smaller than any given difference; here a series of decreasing differences is simply laid at the base. The smallest possible difference is an “Idea”, just as the greatest possible likeness is. A third definition (BOLZANO’s), which explains identity as a thing’s likeness with itself, leads back to LEIBNIZ’s definition, since it is such likeness that conditions substitution. Or else it leads back to the concept of the smallest possible difference; for between a thing and itself there is as a rule less difference than between a thing and other things. And since no thing appears in quite the same way in different connections, identity becomes on this definition too an “Idea”.

It is not a matter of indifference to psychology whether one defines identity by likeness or likeness by identity. In the latter case the definition becomes synthetic; one

apprehends identity as a simple concept and likeness as identity + difference. But against this psychology, and at bottom all science of experience, must protest. For there are likenesses that cannot be resolved in this way, as for example likenesses between two colours (orange and yellow, blue and violet). Not merely qualitative likeness, but likeness of relation (analogy) too, cannot without more ado be resolved in this way. —

Another example of a transition from psychology to epistemology through analysis is to be had in the relation between the criterion of reality and the concept of cause. Psychology must for its own part set itself the question how men go about it when they come to doubt the validity of their observations or representations, that is, the possibility of holding them fast and acting according to them in all cases. Now experience shows that in cases of doubt we involuntarily set about testing whether the single observations and representations agree with one another and with the new observations that can be made. Only where an unavoidable connection shows itself between all the different observations that stand at our disposal do we rely on it that we stand before a “reality”. But such an unavoidable connection is precisely the most elementary form of the concept of cause. Science does not remain at this elementary form, but seeks, everywhere it is possible, to make the connection absolutely rational, so that the members become two-sidedly equivalent. In the ideal concept of causality, rationality has the preponderance over the spatial or temporal relation between the members. — Psychologically it is asked how we go about it in cases of doubt; epistemologically it is asked with what right we infer from past or present to future, or from present to past.

6. It is no objection to the determination here given of the relation between psychology and epistemology that psychology itself, like any other science, presupposes an epistemological foundation. Epistemology, which investigates the foundation of all science, naturally investigates psychology’s too. Psychology’s scientific character rests on the fact that in the domain it cultivates series can be formed that can acquire scientific significance. It is provisionally series with members lying fast that will be able to be formed in the psychological domain; absolute identity-series, and thereby the possibility of exhibiting exact relations of equivalence, still lie far off.

There is no contradiction in epistemology, which has itself historically developed out of psychology, later turning against its own origin — among other things in order to understand its own coming to be — any more than there is any contradiction at all in

the history of science becoming an object for science. It is not, after all, epistemology's task to produce the special sciences. It takes them as given, although they do rest on presuppositions that it is epistemology's task to investigate.

The difficulty often found here will perhaps disappear when one considers that epistemology itself rests on certain presuppositions as soon as it is to be a science. There can accordingly be an epistemology of epistemology, an epistemology in the second power. When epistemology asserts, for example, that all cognition presents a relation between a subject (*S*) and an object (*O*), this relation itself and its members (*S* and *O*) can be taken up again and considered as an epistemological problem. This is at bottom what happens when epistemologists criticize one another. When one does not, like KANT, think that epistemological work can soon be brought to a close, one must concede that there is here the possibility of an infinite series. One cannot, once and for all, break the sting of scepticism. It is a fundamental peculiarity of the life of the spirit that preceding spiritual work can become the object of new spiritual work. The subject can make itself into an object. If the sign { expresses a relation of objectification, we can get an infinite series:

$$S_1\{S_2\{S_3\{S_4 \dots$$

In this series *O* has been entirely abstracted from. In *O* changes can occur that do not depend on *S* alone, just as in *S* too changes can occur that do not depend on *O* alone. The relations will accordingly in reality be more complicated than in the series set out. But this one is sufficient to show what matters here. — Cf. on the whole question here touched on: “Den menneskelige Tanke” p. 297–305.

7. As for all concepts drawn immediately from intuition (sensation, memory or imagination), there holds for the categories the rule that there is an inverse relation between content and extension. The more comprehensive categories are the fundamental ones (synthesis and relation, continuity and discontinuity, likeness and difference), since they hold for all conscious life, for all sensation and thinking, and for invalid thinking just as much as for valid thinking. A narrower class of categories is the formal ones (identity, analogy, negation, rationality), which display themselves when determinate demands are made on the formation of concepts, judgments and inferences. When it is asked how these formal categories are applied to the qualitative changes that observation

exhibits, the real categories (causality, totality and development) come forward. And when it is asked in particular how far conditions are present for a certain whole's arising, subsisting and developing through time, the ideal categories, the value-concepts, come forward, since all value presupposes a relation between a whole and its conditions.

The categories can therefore be ordered in a progressive difference-series, thus — when we keep to the most important categories within each single group —

Synthesis > Identity > Rationality > Causality > Totality > Value.

The following members in the series constantly presuppose the preceding, are in a way contained in them, are special formations or applications of them. Historically the categories have come forward sporadically, according to the need there was to apply them, the tasks that had to be solved. The different sciences, each working with its own categories, also arise sporadically, even if COMTE is right that in the order in which they attain a strict, positive character a certain order can be traced. On the whole there has been a tendency to work with totalities and values before working with the preceding categories. The fundamental categories are first brought out with clarity by LEIBNIZ and KANT. Precisely because they are most intimately bound up with, or are one with, our spirit's own manner of working, it is understandable that they are discovered late. The logical order is in any case a different one from the historical. As with the classification of the sciences proposed by COMTE, we can order the categories so that one advances from the most necessary, and therefore most comprehensive, to the more special.

It shall be investigated in a later connection whether it is not possible to widen at once a concept's content and its extension. The logical rule spoken of, about the inverse relation between content and extension, holds in any case for the categories, since these are drawn immediately from the course of the movement of thought in conscious life and especially in science. It is impossible to derive the other, more special groups of categories from the fundamental categories. The law of synthesis could thus hold even if rationality and causality could find no application; it holds, for example, for a chaotic difference-series too. Causality could hold even if we could find no application for concepts like totality and value. HEGEL's magnificent attempt at a purely deductive development of the doctrine of categories out of the simplest and most comprehensive fundamental concepts foundered on the necessity of constantly taking up new elements and premises

from experience. Conversely, it is impossible to make the most concrete categories, the value-concepts, into the most universal, as is attempted in all theological or theologizing views. Both alike lead only to a play with analogies, without the possibility of exhibiting both the warrant of these analogies and their limitation.

But it follows already from the position of the concept of synthesis as the first member in the series of categories that there is a type common to all categories and groups of categories. If synthesis is the common form for all thought-activity, in whatever domain it is exercised, all thoughts must also present a more or less pronounced character of wholeness. And if it is right that all fundamental definitions must be analytic, then it lies in this that we always begin with wholes, and that thought-work consists in finding parts or elements within such wholes. Thus identity is a special case of likeness, the surface a part of the block, and so forth. Apart from the concept of totality's special place in the series of categories, it will be to be presumed that it is anticipated in the preceding members of the series and lies at the base, in more special form, in the following members. It is from this side that the present treatise takes up anew the investigation of the categories. The ordering of them presented earlier in "Den menneskelige Tanke" will hereby receive a closer elucidation.

8. Historically, as already indicated, the concept of totality makes itself felt very early, on account of the tendency to begin with the most concrete concepts, of which one cannot at once see that they are at the same time the most complicated — or perhaps rather because the different groups of categories had not yet separated themselves out from one another, but formed a single whole or were regarded as identical with one another.

The ancient picture of the world stood before thought as a completed whole, within which every being, every quality and every value had its determinate place. This pre-supposition announces itself already in the Pre-Socratics' question: "What is it that is?" A property of existence is sought which holds for the whole and all its parts, in equal degree *in toto et in parte*. But hereby there arose at the same time a problem that stretched through the whole history of thought. For when that fundamental property is to be the same everywhere, whence then comes the difference between beings, between qualities and between values? The differences cannot be derived from pure identity, and there arises therefore in strict logicians, like PARMENIDES, a tendency to deny the reality of

the differences or to relegate them to “the opinions of mortals”. There appears here an opposition between unity and whole, between rationality and totality, an opposition that in more recent times appears as an opposition between formal and real science. In ARISTOTLE’s doctrine that science has to do only with the universal, but that everything actual is individual and therefore bears the stamp of totality, the problem we here stand at appears in a characteristic manner — and for all time.

In the Renaissance the concept of the whole presses forward into the first rank, and attempts are made to overcome the ancient opposition between thought and totality by interpreting PLATO’s “Ideas” as laws for the real connection of phenomena. The true Ideas, says BRUNO, are not concepts of things or properties in their abstract essence, but concepts of laws that express the connection of different parts in a whole — for example not concepts of head, lung, heart and so forth each by itself, but of the connection between all these things, whereby they come to constitute a whole.¹⁰ The train of thought thus intimated is continued in SPINOZA in his doctrine of individual wholes that can subsist even if the parts change and the single processes within the whole alter direction, provided only that the law of the connection continues to be the same, — and of individualities of different degrees, forming a graded series, until at last the whole of nature stands before us as one great individuality, whose single parts vary without the great individual as a whole undergoing any change.

The cognition of laws that modern science aims at concerns the relation between the phenomena that experience offers. One wants to get away from the barren general concepts to which one can climb up from the single observations, but from which one cannot climb down again to the particulars that observation establishes. This is the momentous change of task to which modern natural science owes its coming to be, and which found its expression in GALILEI’s doctrine of method in the demand for cooperation and mutual supplementation between deduction and induction. But along this road one cannot come to the thought of such a completed whole as antiquity held fast to, — only to a great, unsurveyable connection that can always be extended. BRUNO already intimates that neither the concept of part nor the concept of whole can strictly speaking find application to existence.¹¹ SPINOZA attempts, as we shall come back to in a later

¹⁰“*Den nyere Filosofis Historie*”, I, p. 126 (BRUNO). Cf. p. 194–196 (BACON).

¹¹L’universo è tutto in tutto (se pur in modo alchuno se può dir totalità dove non è parte ne fine). *Opere italiane*, ed Lagarde, p. 315.

connection (Chap. V), to unite the cognition of laws and the conception of the whole in one concept. But HOBBS declared definitely that about the world as a whole one can raise only a few questions — and none of these questions can be answered.¹² The train of thought HOBBS intimates is completed in KANT's doctrine that concepts of absolute totality, "Ideas" as he calls them, cannot serve as a foundation for scientific cognition. And among the "Ideas" he reckons, among other things, the concept of the world; if this concept is to be capable of being formed, it will presuppose an infinite and yet completed synthesis.

The fundamental categories already make the demand of everything that is to be capable of being cognized, that it must be able to be comprehended together with something else and placed in relation to it as continuous or discontinuous with it, and as like or different from it. That is why HOBBS is right that one cannot get an answer to what one asks concerning the world as a whole. But there are all the more questions to raise in return, with prospect of an answer, concerning the limited individualities or totalities that experience shows us. Since every limited whole stands in relation to other wholes or to elements different from itself, it becomes possible here to apply our categories.

A limited whole cannot have the ground of its arising, subsisting and passing away in itself. It is a member in a series, presupposes preceding members in this series which have prepared it and from which it successively separates itself off; it must at every moment come into being anew, since its subsistence depends on determinate conditions; and in so far as it is the cause of changes outside it, it will always show itself to work together with a manifold of other causes, without which its peculiar intervention would not be possible or would lead to no result.

But a problem arises not merely from a whole's relation to what is different from it; in the relation between the whole as such and the elements contained in it there lies a problem too, one that might perhaps tempt us to deny the concept of the whole any epistemological warrant at all. There stand here in any case different tendencies over against one another, corresponding to the opposition between deduction and induction and conditioned by the difficulty of applying here the reciprocal action between the two methods that GALILEI demanded.

¹²De mundo, ut uno multarum partium aggregato, qvæ qværi possunt, paucissima sunt, quæ determinari, nulla. *De Corpore*, Cap. 26, 1.

From the one side the whole weight is laid on the elements that can be distinguished within a given whole, that are of more or less far-reaching significance for its existence, and that can be found again outside it either in the same or in analogous forms. — From the other side the whole weight is laid on the peculiarity with which the whole appears in experience, on the inner connection between its elements so long as they are members of it, on the concentrated force it is able to apply in quite determinate directions and without which it could not subsist. By reason of this inner connection and this concentrated action it presents properties that none of its elements has by itself, and it thereby comes forward as different in kind from these. In every attempt to write the history of a mountain, a river, a forest or a planet this difference comes forward. But it is especially in the biological, the psychological and the sociological domain that an opposition, and with it a problem, makes itself felt here. It is the opposition between the tendencies that can be designated respectively as mechanicism and vitalism, as associationism and spiritualism, as individualism and socialism.

It has been sought to find the difference between natural science and historical science (or, as some would rather say, cultural science) in this, that the former aims only at finding general laws for the cooperation of elements, whereas the latter has to do with individual wholes in their peculiarity. Over against such a conception too a closer investigation of the concept of totality will be of importance. If this concept, like all other categories, bears the peculiar stamp of human thought, it will not be capable of being wholly denied in any domain of cognition whatever.

In some famous lines GOETHE has struck the note of an inquirer's mood in face of the concept of the whole:

Freuet euch des wahren Scheins,
freuet euch des ernstesten Spieles!
Kein Lebendiges ist eins,
immer ist es vieles.

The whole has the character of semblance and of play when it is taken as fully finished at any stage whatever, and when one in a mystical manner ascribes to it a force of self-preservation and development, quite apart from the reciprocal action between inner elements and with outer conditions. But there is truth and earnest in the semblance and

in the play, because the connection of the whole conditions the character of the elements, no less than they determine the character of the whole, and because outer conditions gain influence only through the cooperation of the peculiarity with which the actually given whole appears. Moreover, thought-activity itself, in whatever domain it moves, is the expression of a whole that seeks to extend itself under an ever more intimate joining together of its elements. — From these different points of view we shall in what follows consider the concept of totality.

Chapter II

The Concept of Totality and the Fundamental Categories

9. Without involuntary whole-formation, reflection, which begins with analysis, would not be possible. A concrete intuition, the fruit of a synthesis that has taken place without being an object of consciousness, forms the foundation of all cognition.

Neither an absolute single and unique thing, nor an absolute chaos, could form a foundation for reflection. The fact that analysing reflection is possible — this fact, which is the foundation of all science — proves that the primary psychical process consists in a whole-formation.

Reflection directs itself partly to the relation between the changing wholes (in the domains of sensation, memory and imagination), partly to the relation between the different parts or properties of the single whole. Every subject-matter is a little world, but this little world shows itself also to be part of a greater world, or to stand in relation to other little worlds. Every subject-matter has, as has been said, rents or fringes at its edge, which betray that it has been taken out of a close connection with other subject-matters. Step by step it is discovered that every determination — every determination of time or place, for example, every establishing of a property — at bottom presupposes a far greater whole than the one reflection had begun with.

The single sensation of sense is already determined, both as regards degree of strength and as regards quality, by the whole connection within which it occurs. In recognition a connection with the after-effects of earlier sensations also makes itself felt. Processes take

place here for which language has no peculiar names, but which present analogies to what at more developed stages of consciousness appears in the relation between given subject-matters, their interpretation, and the inferences drawn from them — an analogy that must not be confused with identity. In memory and imagination whole-images are formed in virtue of the law of wholeness underlying all association of representations, which testifies to a need and a capacity to fill out and continue given representations. As already mentioned (§ 3), concrete intuition is held fast as long as possible, and displacements and articulations can take place within it without proceeding to the formation of judgments. Besides the examples I have adduced in earlier presentations, I shall here adduce an example of articulation within a memory-image. My memory-image of a vote on the award of a scholarship contained, among other things, the image of a table on which voting slips were lying. But when the memory-image came up again on a later occasion, it was not voting slips that lay on the table, but letters. I then naturally came to compare the two memory-images with what I knew by another road, and passed the judgment that the latter was right: for the voting slips were sent in in sealed envelopes. The memory-image had accordingly involuntarily undergone a displacement in the right direction, and it was only the relation, the contradiction between the two memory-images, that made the judgment necessary.

An example of articulation already touched on arises from the tendency to make a surface's figure and its outline into one. For the figure cannot be localized; it concerns the whole surface. The surface-figure is what is immediately experienced; but the outline is both easier to describe and of more practical significance. That the outline presses forward in relation to the surface-figure is an intimation of an analysis that can later take place, but that is not absolutely necessary, since the displacement can go on within involuntary intuiting. As EDGAR RUBIN, who has clearly elucidated this point, remarks, we stand here at an expression of a peculiarity of the psychical that makes itself felt in other domains too. Just as little as the surface-figure can be localized anywhere in space within the given whole, because it belongs to the whole itself, just as little can experiences of rhythm, movement and duration be referred to any single point of time within the whole experience.¹ Beginning analysis runs, as the Eleatics already saw, into great difficulties here. The whole itself stands in danger when analysis begins, since it is

¹*Synsoplevede Figurer*, p. 179.

incommensurable with every one of the particulars analysis can point out. Apparently uncompounded sensations of sense are little wholes that do not receive their due through analysis. Thus the sensation of roughness is a whole made of elementary sensations of small unevennesses that are not noticed each by itself; no single sensation of such an unevenness would give the sensation of the whole. — On account of this peculiarity of consciousness the need to hold fast to intuition as long as possible is understood.

Of a peculiar kind of displacement we have an example in the images of light and colour that tones can call forth — what have been called musical photisms, where the mood called forth by tones, and especially by timbre, finds immediate expression in visions of figure or of colour. It is an “instinctive translation into visual expressions” of what has affected the sense of hearing.² When elements of feeling as a rule make themselves felt here, that is an example of concrete and practical intuition passing over into one another, since in the involuntary whole-formations in the domains of sensation, memory and imagination there will always, in greater or less degree, be need and feeling at work.

In the involuntary need for whole-formation the representation of the self has its ultimate ground. It is due to a whole-image formed of the most constant sensations, memories, moods and endeavours, a whole-image that will always be articulated in a determinate direction according to the ruling interest. Especially such states as stand before us as causes of changes in us or outside us exercise their influence here. There works here what GADELIUS has called a motor feeling of wholeness.³ To express consciousness of ourselves (or of our self) analysis belongs. And analysis has here, as everywhere, its difficulties. Here too we keep as long as possible to what immediate and actual intuiting yields. Hence comes the mystical element that often makes itself felt in the representation of ourselves. Here as everywhere mysticism is warranted when it is the expression of the inexhaustible in the given. Our representation of ourselves is for the most part a practical intuition. Analysis can bring forward only a single trait at a time; and when are all the traits brought forward, and what guarantee can we have that they have all been found? Our self-knowledge is therefore always imperfect, quite apart from the fact that, so long as life lasts, new lived experiences can come and with them possibly fundamental

²TH. FLOURNOY: *Des phénomènes de Synopsis*, p. 103.

³BROR GADELIUS: *Tro och öfvertro*, I, p. 158.

alterations in the total connection out of which the representation of the self is to emerge by analysis. Here too it is understood why we cling to intuition as long as possible. We appeal especially to our conscience when we experience, or think we experience, the insufficiency of analysis.

When concrete and practical intuition are no longer able to contain the subject-matters, either on account of their manifoldness or on account of their mutual oppositions, there is a need for, and perhaps also a possibility of, a new kind of whole-formation, namely the formation of judgment. Referring on this to my earlier presentations (“Det psykologiske Grundlag for logiske Domme” and “Den menneskelige Tanke”), I shall here merely make some remarks on a theory put forward by HEINRICH MAIER in his work “Psychologie des emotionalen Denkens”, already mentioned above. With very much in this work I can express my complete agreement. The difference between MAIER’s presentation and mine often rests only on a difference of terminology. But on two points I cannot agree with him. On the one hand he extends, as already mentioned above, the concept of judgment so as to hold for all observations, memories and imaginings, because they are not “indifferent” to the opposition between true and false. On the other hand he maintains that “emotional thinking” does not lead to cognition, but only to “presentation” of what is the object of our feeling and our need.

The first point I have already touched on above (§ 3), where I have sought to show that MAIER wrongly transfers the opposition between true and false into the primary intuiting. It plays no part there, because a secure repose prevails in what is sensed or represented, a security that knows no doubt and therefore does not distinguish, and cannot distinguish, between true and false. Adam and Eve were not indifferent to the difference between good and evil before they ate of the tree of knowledge; they did not know this difference at all. And that immediate security cannot be said to be indifferent to a difference that does not exist for it.

I return here to this point in order to draw attention to the fact that MAIER has two marks by which he decides whether a judging makes itself felt or not. The one is the already mentioned opposition between true and false. The other consists in a transition being made from an independent member within an object to another independent member. He acknowledges that a relation-positing (*Beziehungstätigkeit*) can make itself felt which is not yet a judging, because the members do not stand as independent over

against one another.⁴ This corresponds to what I call articulated or articulating intuiting, a phenomenon which I do not think MAIER allows to come fully into its own.

It is in my view only this second mark, the transition from an independent member to another independent member, that marks the judgment in contrast to the intuition. And it presupposes analysis; for in immediate intuiting the members do not stand as independent. They are not yet separated out from the involuntarily formed whole. Such an analysis and transition can moreover very well take place without the difference between true and false making itself felt. A judgment can be passed just as involuntarily as an intuition can be formed. Immediate security can prevail in our judgments just as well as in our concrete and practical intuitions. It is only when doubt — that is, a certain special kind of judgment — arises that that difference can come forward.

MAIER's two marks come into conflict with one another, since there are judgments in which the opposition between true and false does not make itself felt, and since it is nevertheless the presence of this opposition that is supposed to make it necessary to extend the concept of judgment itself to activities of consciousness that do not consist in a transition from one independent member to another.

As regards the second point, I cannot see otherwise than that MAIER, in spite of the merit he has earned by his characterization of thinking determined by feeling and will, has not let "emotional thinking" come fully into its own as a function that is at bottom of quite the same kind as "cognitive thinking", although it works under peculiar psychical conditions. One would after all also expect that thought-activity works essentially in the same way, whether it goes on predominantly on the basis of sensations, observations and representations, or predominantly on the basis of need, pleasure and displeasure.

MAIER here uses the first of the two marks of a judgment mentioned above. Emotional thinking, he says (p. 140), does not aim at being true, and it is therefore no judgment. But is it now right that emotional thinking does not aim at being true? According to MAIER himself its significance consists in its bringing the object of our pleasure and displeasure, or of our need, clearly and distinctly before us. Therefore MAIER also speaks of self-evidence in volitional acts of thought, a self-evidence consisting in the tendency of desire coming to adequate expression in representations of desire. And it is especially when a doubt has first made itself felt that this self-evidence plainly appears (p. 42). I

⁴*Psychologie des emotionalen Denkens*, p. 123.

cannot see otherwise than that the concept of truth puts its head out in such expressions as “adequate” and “self-evidence”. And the relation is here in reality the same as with “cognitive” functions, which also make themselves felt most plainly after a doubt. What I sense, remember or imagine can indeed become more or less “adequately” or “evidently” conscious to me, that is, my representation of it can more or less completely cover the content of the sensation, the memory or the imagination, can be the fruit of a more or less complete analysis of the immediate intuitions. And so it can also be asked, of the representation that concerns the goal of a need or an impulse, whether it too is true, that is, completely expresses the real direction of the need or the impulse. It is still plainer in the case of a resolution: is what I have set before myself also what I innermost will? Is there truth in my willing, that is, does it cover my real striving? Is it not an illusory goal I have set myself, that is, a goal I do not at bottom aspire to? In the consciousness of a willing, illusions are just as possible as in observations of sense. And there is an analogy between purpose and observation: in the moment of decision I see myself acting in a future moment, anticipate (perceive) a future situation. And it must be added that even if the purpose is carried out, it is not thereby said that it was the expression of what was in reality the innermost striving.

There is, as Danish philosophers especially (POUL MØLLER, KIERKEGAARD) have impressed, a personal truth, which consists in the goals we consciously set for our striving agreeing also with the innermost essence of our personality.

Instead of distinguishing between cognitive and emotional thinking, one should therefore distinguish between two kinds of subject-matter: those that appear as mere, essentially uninterested observations, and those that occur with the character of need and striving. Reflection works in the same way towards both kinds. In both cases we begin with involuntary security, without being “indifferent to true and false”, but with the possibility of being entangled in illusions. And in both cases room can arise for a judging in the sense of a transition from member to member, and thereafter perhaps for a critical testing that abolishes our primary security. The representations that are interwoven — now more as conditions, now more as products — in our need and striving,⁵ our impulses

⁵MAIER attaches great importance to the difference between involuntary *and* voluntary willing (558 ff.; 574); but he sets the boundary at another place than I do, since he reckons impulse and wish to involuntary willing and makes deliberation the presupposition of voluntary willing. Spontaneous and reflex movements he does not reckon as psychical functions, and instinct he reckons to impulse, maintaining that in it too

and wishes, our intentions, purposes and resolutions, can just as well become members in judgments and objects of criticism as the representations interwoven in our observations, memories and imaginings. It is a merit of MAIER's that he has so energetically drawn attention to them. But he has not thereby exhibited any wholly new kind of thinking. The fundamental categories occur in both kinds, and when criticism has awakened the other groups of categories will also be able to make themselves felt. In the discussion of the value-categories (Chap. V) we shall come back to this question.

10. Reflection presupposes an immediately given in the form of intuiting (concrete or practical intuition), and this immediately given stands as a whole that can now become an object of analysis. In such a whole a manifold of elements shows itself to be connected in a peculiar way, and we therefore find the law of synthesis holding already here.

Against the warrant for finding synthesis in the immediately given, HERMANN COHEN has raised the objection that synthesis presupposes a given manifold that can be gathered together, and he has held that KANT, in applying the concept of synthesis, makes himself guilty of LOCKE's and HUME's error, namely that of regarding the originally given as a chaos of sensations of sense.⁶ In a somewhat different form the same objection appears when BERGSON⁷ maintains that the immediately given cannot be expressed by a concept that contains an opposition to another concept — and the concept of synthesis does after all contain an opposition to the concept of manifold.

Against this objection it must be conceded that the concept of synthesis has been carried over by analogy from more differentiated psychical functions to the more primary ones. Language has, as already remarked, formed no expressions for the most primitive psychical functions. Synthesis appears most plainly where the task is set of connecting and ordering actual and plainly presented differences. In consciously set tasks we have both the preceding manifold and the connection won by psychical work before us as objects of consciousness, and perhaps different intermediate stages of advancing ordering and wholeness. By the road of analogy we apply the concept of synthesis, and with it the concept of psychical work, even where no preceding manifold can be observed

there is always a representation of what is aimed at. I do not believe observation confirms this division. A need can make itself felt and find vent in involuntary action without any representation of a goal being at work.

⁶H. COHEN: *Logik der reinen Erkenntnis* (1902), p. 24.

⁷BERGSON: *Introduction à la Métaphysique* (Revue de Métaphysique et de Morale, 1903), p. 15–17.

and no intermediate stages in its gathering-together apprehended — as in immediate intuiting, that is, in the emerging of images of sense, of memory and of imagination with that character of wholeness which is the condition of reflection's analysis. It is both continuity and analogy that lie at the base here. For there can be all possible degrees in the speed with which the gathering work is exercised, and experience shows that the shorter the physiological time is, the more consciousness is replaced by unconsciousness. And everything indicates that even what psychologically appears as single and completed is, physiologically regarded, represented by a manifold of processes. We have therefore no right to think that psychical work (to which a physiological work is naturally always assumed to correspond) ever falls away entirely, so long as consciousness subsists. There are all possible degrees between potential and actual psychical energy.⁸

For immediate intuiting (concrete and practical intuition) there are no problems. They come only with reflection. If it is a matter of getting into a problemless state, all that is needed is to keep reflection out. We all have a need for that, and it is warranted too, when we are to be wholly and fully absorbed in a lived experience. The value of imagination and of art presupposes such an absorption; so it stands with the conditions of life we are absorbed in, and with devotion to great ideas and endeavours. But life constantly demands new psychical work, since synthesis runs into new resistance. And it will be extraordinarily difficult to decide whether in single cases one stands before something quite immediate — whether tradition, suggestion and reflection are not at work. There is a tendency to regard states that are habitual and hallowed by tradition as quite immediately given. In all attempts to distinguish between faith and knowledge such a tendency appears in greater or less degree.

HUME too referred to an immediately given. But for him it was not a whole or a continuum, but a chaotic manifold. But a chaos is just as difficult to establish as an absolute continuum. The presence of a chaotic difference-series can be proved only when searching attempts to find order and connection have ended with a negative result. HUME saw, as BERGSON did, that the first foundation of cognition cannot itself be rational. Absolute manifold is just as irrational as absolute continuum. Both discontinuity and continuity set tasks — the former that of finding more connection, the latter that of finding more difference. Every subject-matter presents, both within itself and over against other

⁸I have discussed this question already in *Den menneskelige Tanke*, p. 10–19.

subject-matters, both continuity and discontinuity. If we would speak of an immediately given, both categories must be applied.

The very concept “immediately given” is formed by reflection. If there were nothing present but an absolute “immediately given”, no concept whatever, and so not the concept “immediately given” either, could be formed. It is formed precisely in opposition to reflection — and by reflection itself, when this becomes conscious of its manner of working and of its presuppositions. Every immediately given is determined by its opposition to a certain degree and kind of reflection. What is immediate in one respect need not be so in others.

It is the need to determine the relations between different subject-matters, and between the elements of the same subject-matter, that leads out beyond the immediately given. In an immediately given (an intuiting) there is perhaps for the time being an equilibrium between gathering-together (synthesis) and relation, between continuity and discontinuity, between likeness and difference. But the equilibrium can be abolished, and there will then be an oscillation between opposed tendencies. The preponderance of synthesis, continuity and likeness leads to continuing in the involuntarily entered track, to acting on the principle “Why not?” This tendency can lead to combining, connecting and identifying on an ever greater scale. But when relation, discontinuity and difference make themselves strongly felt, closer determinations and boundaries are sought, and one acts on the principle “Why?” There is then required a statement of the relations in which subject-matters and elements stand to one another, and an exhibition of how there can be connection in spite of the discontinuity, and of how the degrees of likeness and difference stand to one another. Determinate problems are now set — now, when the intuition’s equilibrium has been abolished.

But the different categories that in the formation of problems come to stand in opposition to one another are nevertheless connected in pairs as correlative concepts, and the one member of such a pair cannot find application without the other. A determinate formation of the one member must bring with it a determinate formation of the other. WUNDT has in an interesting treatise discussed the significance of correlative concepts and exhibited the tendency, which makes itself felt especially in speculative systems, to keep exclusively to a single one of the members without regard to the other, or perhaps even in such a way that the other’s validity is wholly denied. HEGEL’s dialectic arose

precisely from his becoming aware of the mutual connection of the fundamental concepts, according to which the one must with necessity be supplemented by the other.⁹

A pseudo-problem has often presented itself here through the developed consciousness's distinction between subject and object being read into the primitive consciousness. Such a distinction becomes possible only through doubt, which again presupposes disappointment. The scholastic distinction between act of consciousness and content of consciousness has even been read into immediate consciousness, and belief in reality is then explained by the content's gaining influence on the act. But a distinction can be made between act and content only after it has shown itself that there can be "acts" without real content. From the first no difference at all makes itself felt between one's own activity and the content received. This difference arises when one has acted on — that is, drawn all the theoretical and practical consequences of — one's content of consciousness, and this acting then brings disappointment with it. It is the need to act that both grounds the original trust in any given content of consciousness and can later lead to doubting and correcting it.

Of special interest, in the epistemological respect, is that the criterion which can put an end to doubt lies in the question whether the content can constitute part of as great a connection as we are able to establish between our observations and our memories. To take a simple example. When I cannot remember whether I have shut my street door — that is, when I cannot recognize the sensations of touch and movement that the shutting brings with it — it can help if I can recall and recognize all the other circumstances (the grasp after the key in my pocket, the inserting of the key in the lock, the slam of the door — perhaps also what I was thinking of at the moment as I stood at the door, and so forth). It is the whole that abolishes the doubt.

But with an example like this we have already gone beyond the group of the fundamental categories. That shows itself already in the fact that a small and slender, but rational, thread of logical consequence can mean more than a great complex of particulars. In order to understand how this is possible, we must investigate the two following groups of categories, the formal and the real.

⁹WUNDT: *Zur Geschichte und Theorie der abstrakten Begriffe* (Kleine Schriften, I, p. 226–258).

Chapter III

The Concept of Totality and the Formal Categories

11. Concept, judgment and inference designate different forms and degrees of logical totality. The concept is a thought-whole in which a group of marks is connected in a determinate way. The judgment is a thought-whole in which a group of concepts is connected according to their mutual relation. The inference is a thought-whole in which several judgments are connected according to the way in which they mutually presuppose one another.

In the inference the formal totality appears most plainly. Every member is bound to the others in the most intimate way, namely through identity as regards a single common concept. And in the relation that thus shows itself to obtain between different judgments, rationality appears. All the premises together contain the conclusion in advance, and each single premise acquires significance only by being connected with other premises. Such an intimate unity of thoughts, in which each single thought bears the others and is borne by them, is philosophy's great ideal. GOETHE's Mephistopheles mocks the way in which formal logic separates out and emphasizes the single members of this whole. But this mockery is warranted only where the "spiritual bond" is lacking. That an organism can be dissected does not prevent it from being a whole so long as it is alive. Nor is it the case that all presentations of formal logic let the thought-whole in its different forms come equally into its own. Language often puts difficulties in the way here, since the very fact that each single mark, each single concept and each single judgment receives its

own particular linguistic expression gives them an apparent independence over against one another and an apparent indifference towards the connection in which they occur. It would however be an injustice to language to lay weight only on this side of the matter. For language shows precisely its close connection with thought in this, that the single word and the single sentence become fully intelligible only by being referred to a whole — either the linguistic whole, the entire system of words and sentences to which they belong, or else the whole concrete situation in which they arise.¹ It is always due to an abstraction, often an unwarrantable abstraction, when the single word or the single sentence is torn out of the linguistic or real connection in which it arises.

It is science's task to lead all subject-matters that appear into a great connection, which has its model in the thought-whole our concepts, judgments and inferences constitute. Critical philosophy maintains here, in opposition to dogmatism in all its different forms, that only an advancing carrying-through of a great analogy can be attained, without our having the right to make this analogy into identity. There present themselves nevertheless tasks enough within this way of looking at things. For there can be several different thought-wholes, each holding for its own domain of experience, and the question becomes whether these different thought-wholes can be worked together so as to constitute a single thought-whole. And within every single thought-whole the question arises whether it exhausts the domain of experience to which it corresponds — whether the concept contains everything that "lies in" the intuition — whether the judgment's predicate exhausts the subject's content — whether the conclusion gives everything contained in the premises.

The condition for a formation of concepts is that the subject-matters are ordered in a determinate way, so that their mutual relation can appear. If the concept horse is to be formed, we must have the different races and variations, forms now living and forms extinct, ordered in a series, and the concept then expresses the relation between these different forms, their likenesses and their differences. The formation of judgment again presupposes an ordering of concepts, especially in a partial identity-series, and the inference presupposes an ordering of concepts in one of the rational series.

All such series-formations aim at ordering the content of a provisionally formed group of subject-matters (a subject-matter totality), so that a closer analysis can take

¹*Den menneskelige Tanke*, p. 84. — *Det logiske Prædikat* (Vidensk. Selsk. Overs. 1914), p. 242.

place. In every single case more will be given than the task set requires. The whole series $A < B < C < D$ I have no use for, if it is merely the relation between B and D that I wish to determine; I then leave A out of consideration, and C I use only as an intermediate member that can be eliminated. The analytic method starts out from the thought of a task, and it is then a matter of finding out what in the series presented can be used and what is superfluous. A discovery is often made by distinguishing between the subject-matters presented and then choosing what is to be used. As POINCARÉ expresses it: *Inventer, c'est discerner, c'est choisir.*²

12. Formal logic has almost exclusively taken account of concepts that are drawn from intuition and that can be ordered in a graded series, such that the following concept always has less content but greater extension than the preceding. It is classification that has governed it since ARISTOTLE's time. A presupposition here is that the first concepts in the ascending series, namely the individual concepts, are fully finished before one passes over to the general concepts.

But when one considers more closely the relation between the individual concept and the immediately given, the subject-matters it is to correspond to, one sees the necessity of distinguishing between two sorts of individual concept, which in my *Psychologi* I have proposed to call concrete and typical individual concepts. When a subject-matter (or a group of subject-matters) undergoes changes and runs through different stages, one can seek to determine the inner relation between these different stages, the law according to which the one succeeds the other — that is, the law of development of the given subject-matter, of the whole presented. Of each single stage one can have a concrete individual concept; of the whole, as it appears represented by the series of stages, one can have a typical individual concept. When a typical individual concept has been formed, there is present a series of concrete individual concepts in a determinate mutual relation as members of it. So in the concept a biography is able to give us of a human personality: the different stages of development it has run through contribute, in a determinate mutual relation, to the characterization of the personality as a whole. The richer and at the same time the more determinate the typical individual concept is, the better will one be able, going back from it, to understand the single stages in the subject-matter's development. What is significant about the typical individual concepts is that they stand

² *Science et Méthode*, p. 48.

to the corresponding concrete individual concepts not as species to individuals, but as whole to parts. The whole contains here the law in virtue of which the one stage succeeds the other. And here content and extension can grow together, which was not possible with the concepts formed in the service of classification.

In more recent times a tendency can be traced to put typical individual concepts in the place of general concepts. To general concepts one can climb up, but from them one cannot, without the help of observation, climb down to the subordinate concepts. Analysis does not lead us from part to whole, but only from whole to part, and general concepts give only a part of the content of the individual concepts. The tendency named appears already in BRUNO and BACON, in that they, as already mentioned, interpret PLATO's "Ideas" as concepts of laws. SPINOZA rejects the general concepts (*abstracta et universalia*) and demands in their place laws that display themselves in equal degree in the whole and in its parts; in these laws he finds the expression of existence's peculiarity, of something that is fixed and eternal and yet individual.³ With this it hangs together that he apprehends the whole of nature as one great individual. His concept of nature is a typical individual concept. LEIBNIZ has directly set up the typical individual concept, in that he finds the essence of individuality expressed in the law for the series of its operations (*lex continuationis seriei suarum operationum*, *Lettre à Arnauld* 1690; — *cette loi de l'ordre qui fait l'individualité de chaque substance particulière*, *Lettre à Basnage* 1698). Later LOTZE saw that where a concept expresses the law of a development (*ein Bildungsgesetz*), the rule about the inverse relation between content and extension does not hold.⁴

The question now is how far such typical individual concepts stand at our disposal. In all domains of experience we must first laboriously form them on the basis of observations that can never be proved to be exhaustive. The characterization of a personality, a people or a period to which historical research can lead, and which can then serve to elucidate the single traits of character and the single events, must itself be won on the basis of report and observation and always stands as a hypothesis. Ethics works by analysis of a typical individual concept, a model (an ideal society, or an ideal personality), which is determined by the fundamental value that bears the ethical train of thought, and by

³Hæc fixa et æterna, qvavis sint singularia, tamen ob eorum ubique præsentiam ac latissimam potentiam, erunt nobis tanqvam universalia. *De emend. intell.*

⁴*Drei Bücher der Logik*, p. 50.

the conditions for asserting and carrying it through. Ethical judgments declare what properties and actions are, in accordance with this model determined by the fundamental value, required of the empirical society and the empirical personality.⁵ Epistemology builds on a typical individual concept of human thinking, built on the way this displays itself in involuntary thought-life and in the history of science, and the single categories and fundamental propositions are found by analysis of the concept so formed.

But should there not be a possibility of a thinking in which the typical individual concepts that form the basis of analysis are constructed by thought itself, without the help of observation being necessary at every single step? The whole that conditions the understanding would then be thought's own work. — This question leads us to discuss the relation between logic and mathematics.

⁵Cf. *Det psykologiske Grundlag for logiske Domme* (Vid. Selsk. Skr., 6. Række, hist. og filos. Afd. IV, 6), p. 385. — In Chap. V we shall come back to this point.

Chapter IV

The Concept of Totality and the Real Categories

Chapter V

Totality and Value

Chapter VI

Totality as a Limit Concept

Table of Categories